IMMORTALITY AND THE RISE OF RESURRECTION

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DRAFT

It is probably true to say that all human cultures have entertained some kind of belief in an "afterlife"—from the Palaeolithic or earlier (and possibly even our kin the Neanderthals[1]) to the present, with views, however primitive and inchoate their conception, on the continuance, beyond the point of biological death, of the life of individual humans—and have treated their engagement with it in ritual fashion. That is, they have not believed that life was simply extinguished at death, but that in some manner, a part of the individual was carried over into a *post-mortem* existence. In the ancient Near East, this further state might be a generally dreary persistence in the underworld, as expressed in poignant lines in the Gilgamesh epic[2], though the widespread observance of *kispum* rites shows that provided the correct ritual procedures were observed, the dead lived in a state of relative tranquillity, in continuing solidarity with their surviving kin[3]. In Egypt a process of apotheosis by identification with Osiris was eventually adopted widely throughout the population, by the adoption of a hope limited originally to the king, then by his entourage, with a gradual percolation of belief down to the general population, and a variety of other destinies, from identification with various deities, to astral ascent and bodily resurrection, were also available, in a kaleidoscope of beliefs[4].

This ritualisation of death means that some meaning and purpose has probably been felt to be present—or has been invested in it—and that its negative quality can somehow be tempered. Ritual confers meaning. A belief in some kind of survival of an element of individual identity seems to have been universal (perhaps due to encountering dead relatives in dreams). The idea of total annihilation ("the second death"), whenever mentioned in ancient texts, came to be understood from early times to be a terrible punishment for unforgivable sins[5], or for failure to observe the appropriate rites, with survival as otherwise normative.

If we turn to the West Semitic peoples, a variety of belief-systems was probably observed, reflected in the different local means for the disposal of the dead.

Archaeology has had an important part to play in advancing a modern understanding of ancient beliefs, which has enabled recent scholarship to offer important correctives to older perceptions, particularly with regard to Israel and Judah. The conventional histories of

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1 Some of the Neanderthal remains found in a cemetery at Shanidar have been interpreted as ritualised burials, with chert fragments deliberately arranged in association, and flowers strewn over body 4 (an interpretation now in doubt: see Fiacconi—Hunt 2015).
See also https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Shanidar_Cave (with useful bibliography).

2 Gilgamesh VII 182-210—Enkidu's dream (*ANET* 87, George 2003 i: 645). Cf. The Descent of Ishtar 1-12 (*ANET* 107). See also Achilles' words to Odysseus in Iliad 11:488-91.

3 The classic treatment is Tsukimoto 1985. See also Bayliss 1973. With regard to the West Semitic world see also Lewis 1989, Sanders 2012, Suriano 2016, *id.* forthcoming, and Wyatt 2012.

4 There are also statements in the Pyramid Texts, Coffin Texts and Book of the Dead which appear to be describing a form of resurrection. See below, §5.

5 Targum Isaiah 22:14, 65:6, Targum Jeremiah 51:17, Revelation 2:11, 20:6, 14, 21:8. The term is surely misused by Korpel 1996: 105 (cited below, n. 12).

"Israelite religion" of a few decades ago, when they even bothered to address the topic[6], gave a negative account, of a people who despite having what the writers considered to be the most elevated religion of antiquity, the precursor of Christianity, nevertheless denied them any *post-mortem* consolation, a bleak future indeed for "God's chosen people"! J. Pedersen painted a dismal picture, though he conceded[7] that there was a solidarity between the dead and living members of the family (an important concession). J. G. Griffiths observed, in discussing the idea of judgment in Israel and Judah, that

> it may be doubted whether a stage in a future life is envisaged. The confident statement that God *will requite every man for what he does* (Prov. 24:12 [author's emphasis]) probably implies compensation in the present life. If there is no full-hearted belief in life after death, there is obviously no place for a judgement of the life record... without a belief in an afterlife, the act of recording lacks the motive which concerns us... We look in vain for any clear evidence that early Hebrew religion embraced a belief in immortality.[8]

John Day observed that

> Until the postexilic development of belief in a more worthwhile afterlife it was held by the ancient Israelites that the destination of all human beings after death, irrespective of moral quality or social status, was a dark, gloomy underworld cavern akin to the Greek Hades, known as Sheol.[9]

And Ziony Zevit, in his wide-ranging study of Israelite religion, as recently as 2001, devoted scarcely any discussion to *post-mortem* beliefs and practices[10]. To be sure, annihilation was

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6 Many studies even in the later twentieth century failed to address the issue, and had no appropriate entries in their indices. Von Rad made the following statement, entirely in accordance with contemporary assessments:

> ... the dead were excluded from fellowship with Yahweh and were in the highest degree unclean... We find in Ps. LXXXVIII a definition of the state of being dead which, theologically peaking, leaves practically nothing more to be said: the dead were cut off from praising Jahweh and from hearing him proclaimed, and above all, they were cut off from him himself. On the other hand, since Israel was strictly forbidden to ascribe any numinous power to the dead lying outside the possibilities of Jahwism, i.e. by way of an additional private cult, an extremely odd theological vacuum resulted. Jahweh's tendency to destroy myth in all its forms was not abandoned in its understanding of death. What is astounding is the way in which this mysterious word is entirely divested of its sacral character. (von Rad 1962-65: ii 349-50).

With the benefit of hindsight afforded by later scholarship—quite apart from the egregious remark on myth—this now reads as a serious misunderstanding of the complex reality of Israelite-Judahite religion. Rowley 1956, 155, was very restrained. And even so recent a study as Albertz (1994) ignored the topic. In contrast, see Oesterley—Robinson 1930: 58-61, 317-32; de Vaux 1961: 56-61; Tromp 1969; Brichto 1973.

7 Pedersen 1959: 460-70, especially 462.

8 Griffiths 1991, 300-1.

9 Day 1996: 231. On the concept see Johnston 2002.

10 Zevit 2001. He briefly dealt with the tomb at Tel ʿEton, 242-47, where he made the interesting suggestion that some of the relief carvings were of birds, which he called *nešārīym* (sc. *nešārîm*—"raptors"), and associated with the Egyptian avian representation of the Ba, the freely moving soul of the dead. (On the concept see Korpel 1996.) Unfortunately, the site has now been identified as a Philistine settlement (Faust 2015), which rather reduces its immediate value as a guide to "Israelite" practice! Zevit also noted Brichto's 1973 study (627 n. 36). Astour 1998: 59, shared this view, writing of "the pessimistic view of the hereafter" in relation to Mesopotamian and Levantine thought, though with a recognition of a "selective immortality" restricted to certain persons, mostly in a proto-Greek ambit. As for Brichto, note his remarks, 1973: 2-3, concerning the confused situation, not least with regard to imprecision in the terminology scholars employ.

not an issue; instead, he also recognised a shadowy existence in a rather grim subterranean zone, "Sheol" (*šĕʾôl*, *šĕʾōl*)[11], as described by Day, characterised by separation from God (or at least from Yahweh). There is certainly some textual support for this view, but it is not the whole story. Obvious examples apparently supporting this assessment are the following passages, probably spread over many centuries, which lament the loss of communication with Yahweh:

Psalm 6:5/6

kîʾ ên bammāwet zikrekā	For in death there is no remembrance of you;
bišʾôl mî yôdeh-lāk	In Sheol who will give you thanks?

Ecclesiastes (Qohelet) 9:10

kol ʾăšer timṣāʾ yādĕkā	Whatever your hand finds to do,
laᶜăśôt bĕkōḥăkāᶜăśēh	do it with your might;
kîʾ ên maᶜăśēh wĕḥešbôn	for there is no work or device
wĕdaᶜat wĕḥokmâ	or knowledge or wisdom
bišʾôl ʾăšer ʾattā šāmâ	in the grave where you are going.

Isaiah 38:18

kî lōʾ šĕʾôl tôdâ	For Sheol cannot thank you,
māwet <lōʾ> yĕhalĕlekā	death cannot praise you;
lōʾ yĕśśaběrû yôrĕdê-bôr	those going down to the pit cannot hope for your truth.
ʾel-ʾ ămittekā	

Psalm 115:17

lōʾ hammētîm yĕhalĕlû-yāh	The dead do not praise Yahweh,
wĕlōʾ kol-yōrĕdê dûmâ	Nor any who go down into silence.

Job 10:20b-22

yĕšît mimmennî wĕʾablîgâ mĕᶜāṭ	Leave me, and allow me a little happiness
bĕṭerem ʾēlēk wĕlōʾ ʾāšûb	until I go away and do not return,
ʾel-ʾereṣ ḥōšek wĕṣalmāwet	to the dark and gloomy underworld,
ʾereṣ ᶜēpātâ kĕmôʾ ōpel	to the murky, pitch-black underworld…

Many further similar passages could be cited. The rather jaundiced view that citations such as these witness are not however to be construed as formal statements of doctrine. And it is certainly unwarranted to see them as privative statements set against the "fulness" of a later Christian conception. Rather they are to be understood in either (or both) of two ways. Firstly, they may be described broadly as the natural psychological response of resignation to the inevitability of one's mortality. Secondly, they may be reflecting particular dark moments in the experience of the poet after bereavement, or in moments of unbelief and depression, or even such experience expressed communally through the form of liturgy.

In the polytheistic milieu which was probably their original context—for we should certainly not *assume* a monotheistic background as the default—it may be that since the

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[11] The etymology of the term is disputed, and not entirely clear. See *HALOT* (iv) 1368-70. Day (1996: 231) cited with approval the view of Koehler (1946: 71-74), that it is a final *–l* formation on √*šāʾā*, on the analogy of *gbᶜ—gbᶜl* and *krm—krml*, with the sense of (place of) "devastation", "ruination". *HALOT* 1368 endorsed this as "the most likely proposal". On the concept in general see Tromp 1969: 21-23 (and for various aspects 23-79); Barstad 1996; Johnston 2002: 69-124; Suriano 2016.

underworld was the domain of other divine powers (sc. Reshef, Horon, Mot…), what the poets were lamenting was specifically alienation from *Yahweh*, who was supposed to have no jurisdiction there. But this third option is not entirely convincing in view of our further discussion, for the passages just cited offer no evidence that we are to consider such a divine division of labour: these passages despair at the absence of the deity, Yahweh, to whom they are wholly devoted, with no sense of divided loyalties. There is no escape from the despair.

The various expressions such as these are also to be qualified in the face of the archaeological evidence, which shows a well-structured process of transition from life through cessation of life and primary burial, on a bench in the tomb, to secondary (collective) burial at the back of the tomb, once natural excarnation and disassembly of bones has taken place. This was routine, in the sense that it operated as a regular, accepted process of transformation of the living individual into a member of the ancestral group, to whom one was "gathered" or "added". This pattern was well-established, with minor variations in development, throughout Iron Age Palestine.

It is in this broader context that Sheol should be assessed. Rather than a place of ultimate misery[12], it is to be seen as an intermediate stage in the journey made by the dead, a liminal condition between the initial rites of burial on the bench and those accompanying the final deposition of the bones with those of earlier generations at the back of the tomb, in which one's lonely *post-mortem* condition gave way to a communal rest with the ancestors. This is what the expression "being gathered (or: "added") to one's kinsmen" (*yē'āsep 'el-ᶜammāw*: Genesis 25:8, 35:29, similarly 49:29) means. It is the final fulfilment of life's process, and should not be seen through modern eyes, as somehow deficient[13]. The dead on whom the appropriate rites had been performed passed beyond Sheol. Furthermore, the Iron Age biblical evidence discussed by Lewis, myself and others, suggests that an analogue of the *kispum* was an integral part of this belief-system[14]. Key elements in the understanding of this institution were family identity (integration into the "communion of saints") and the transmission of property. Probably not unrelated to the institution and social pattern is the view that one somehow lived on in one's descendants, so that one bridged the past—the ancestors—and the future—the descendants. The perpetuation of one's name (*šēm*) in descendants is a related concept, and these three expressions may be regarded as different aspects of the same reality[15]. The picture evoked in such negative passages as are cited above requires, therefore, to be qualified in the light of other textual evidence, and archaeological analysis of practice in the two kingdoms[16], particularly in the Iron Age II period, when we are on reasonably secure historical grounds concerning the reality of the polities described in the Hebrew Bible.

If we bear in mind the observation above, regarding the ultimate destiny of the dead, that we should think, so far as the pre-exilic world is concerned, in terms of community rather than individual identity, then the prevailing world-view did not necessarily see the need for

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12 "This foul region of virtual annihilation"! Johnson 1964: 94; "… eternal imprisonment in Sheol, the second death from which even the inhabitants of the hereafter were not exempt": Korpel 1996: 105.

13 See, generally, Tromp 1969: 21-23, 102-7; Barr 1993: 28-36; Barstad 1999; Olyan 2005 (especially 610); Suriano 2016.

14 Tsukimoto 1985, Lewis 1989, Wyatt 2012, all with extensive bibliography.

15 For a recent discussion see Sanders 2012.

16 Bloch-Smith 1992, *ead.* 2002, Suriano forthcoming. For an appraisal of Bloch-Smith 1992 see Tappy 1995.

further enquiry, into ideas such as resurrection. However, while the idea of divine resurrection, such as that of Baal in the Ugaritic tradition need not be related directly to that of human resurrection (except in the special case examined below), it does indicate a world-view in which the possibility was acknowledged, and the concept had taken root. And we would be wise not to assume the purely coincidental nature of this. When Christianity developed the theme, it was Christ's resurrection (which is presented in the New Testament as coming as a complete surprise to his disciples) which "proved" the validity of the common hope, and he was increasingly seen as divine[17].

Left unqualified, the idea of resurrection is actually rather woolly. What does it mean for a spiritual being, that is, a god: how can a physical concept apply to deities? The woolliness will persist when we turn to the idea of human resurrection. Does resurrection mean coming back to physical life? If so, what of Jesus' word of warning to Mary on Easter morning (John 20:17), or Paul's "spiritual" body as expounded in 1 Corinthians 15:35-54 (especially 44)? Against this can be set the sound of Lazarus shuffling forth from his tomb after four days (John 11:44), and Thomas putting his finger into the hole in Jesus' side (John 20:24-28: but does he actually *do* it?). A sophist might call the former option "pseudo-resurrection", the form, without the substance. And in John, these are "signs" (σημεῖα: parabolic, not literal), proofs of Jesus' divine status rather than expositions of current belief. Indeed, the witness of the gospels and Acts suggests that resurrection was the last thing Jesus' disciples expected to happen!

When we consider the idea of resurrection, we should think of it as primarily a physical one[18], since this epitomises the social aspect, as a communal, collective motif. In nascent Judaism it represented a belief in the vindication and triumph of an oppressed minority, so was communally orientated, and not just an expression of individualism. Its very improbability and even inconceivability is in direct proportion to its value as a symbol of *national* survival (as in its powerful early expressions in Isaiah 26:19 and Ezekiel 37[19], considered below). This was certainly its original conception in the Maccabaean crisis and its expression of a resurgence of Jewish nationalism in the second century BC. Its transformation into a "spiritual resurrection"—whatever such an idea was supposed to mean, being strictly oxymoronic in nature—is perhaps to be explained as a consequence of the privatisation of religion in the new Christian dispensation, which was always challenged by Greek metaphysical presuppositions. Whether we are to see an adumbration of this new mental disposition in the shifts taking place in the exilic period, as hinted at by Carol Newsom (below), remains difficult to quantify, but is a proposal deserving attention.

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[17] On Baal, see further discussion below. One important caveat should be noted. The myth of Baal's death and resurrection does not reflect any known older or wider tradition to this effect. It belongs exclusively within the literary world of the Ugaritic text, and its ritual association within the context of royal ideology, as discussed below. We have no *evidence* that this ideology had other comparators.

[18] As we shall see, a precise understanding of what is or was involved is difficult to pin down with precision.

[19] Charlesworth denied that this chapter had anything to do with resurrection: "The raising of the nation Israel from disgrace or defeat has too often been confused as 'resurrection' of mortals who have died… For centuries, this passage was, and in many synagogues and churches today is, misrepresented as referring to the resurrection of individuals to eternal life" (2006b: 2-3). It certainly predated the developments in the Hellenistic period by some centuries, but the fact that it used the metaphor of resurrection for national revival certainly would not go unnoticed.

The question of resurrection is distinct from the general notion of some kind of survival (that is, continuance of conscious life, or of some spiritual dimension) after death. It is a sub-category, and a particularly interesting one, because it arises as an issue for discussion as both a divine and a human concept. The separation of the two categories seems to be unwarranted[20], except perhaps for analytical purposes[21]. The one is paradigmatic for the other, and really would have little significance except for its cross-referential nature. We shall therefore consider the two in tandem in this discussion. It is worth reflecting for a moment on the question of priority, if one application of the idea was indeed historically earlier than the other. In other words, was it the theological exploration which triggered off the rise in ritual and credal systems presupposing resurrection, and was the divine context the mythical legitimisation of the social reality, or was it *vice versa*, with the probably unconscious urge to make some positive sense of life (that is, that it need not all come to an end, but might lead to greater things), which only later took the form of legitimising myths?

Or was it perhaps a mutually influential development? While the idea of a bodily survival, expressed in terms of resurrection, may have developed independently of the divine category, or the other way round, it is hard to believe that they did not become closely linked, with a cross-fertilisation in the thought-process. It is also evident that the idea of divine resurrection would not necessarily involve any corporeal element, in that the gods had a spiritual life independent of their embodied forms in icons and statues. It is this element which suggests that the divine conception is older, and probably led to the development of the concept of human resurrection. This is perhaps supported by the fact that resurrection is generally conceived as an individual rather than a collective experience in the divine realm, so that the human concept was arguably a generalised development from that singular idea.

Though it is unlikely that either of these arguments can be proved, we shall proceed with them as a working hypothesis. But it is also worth noting that the widespread institution of the *kispum* and analogues throughout the Ancient Near East, involving the feeding of the dead, and a belief in their continuing force for good or ill in the land of the living, even if it did not necessarily imply it, could nevertheless be understood to mean that the dead continued to have a quasi-corporeal existence of some kind, if they needed, and could benefit from continued sustenance. Feeding the dead suggests a notion of corporeality. It is perhaps no accident that the institution of the *kispum* was closely analogous to the continued feeding of the gods in the cult, which to a modern mind might seem superfluous if they were really supernatural beings[22].

The development of the Idea of Resurrection in Late Jewish Thought

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[20] Elledge 2006, 23, suggested that the two categories are best kept apart.

[21] The term *'ĕlōhîm* in Hebrew texts can denote the dead, as in 1 Samuel 28: 13.

[22] Such an argument could converge with the greater argument, of how deities were originally conceptualised with the Neolithic religious revolution (I have in mind the assessment of Jacques Cauvin: Cauvin 1994), when a case can be, and often has been, made, though unprovably, that the gods originated in the psychological reality of perceiving one's ancestors in dreams and hallucinations, and concluding that they were supernatural realities.

There has long been a broad consensus that belief in resurrection developed very late in the Jewish experience in the pre-Christian era. There remained even with the first century AD/CE a profound dichotomy between those who accepted, and those who rejected, the new concept: the conflict between Sadducees and Pharisees, reflected in the New Testament[23] shows that ideas were still fluid, and still the subject of active theological debate and disagreement.

The catalyst for change from the old Iron Age conventions, which probably survived even the catastrophe of the exilic experience, was the political and social upheaval caused by the Seleucid conquest of the Levant, and the imposition of vigorous anti-Jewish policies by Antiochus IV Epiphanes.

Charlesworth summarised the discussion of his 2006 edited volume in these words:

> It was during the time of the Maccabees that the final editorial work on the book of Daniel and the concept of resurrection finally makes a clear and unmistakable impact on the biblical books.[24]

This was a well-crafted assessment, worthy of a diplomatic résumé. It avoided the trap of dating the origin of an idea to its first surviving textual expression, allowed an earlier editorial process, and conceded a prior impact before it became "clear and unmistakable". So it allowed for the kind of anticipation we shall see below.

But against this consensus we should set the following observation of S. Cook:

> Far from mere metaphor, Isaiah 26 anticipates a vision of actual resurrection that forms a basis for the well-known resurrection faith of Daniel 12:1–3. Israel was long familiar with the idea that the dead could be awakened (cf. 1 Kings 17:17–24; 2 Kings 4:8–37, 13:21; Hosea 6:2; Ezekiel 37; Isaiah 53:9–10). So too, from early on, a core biblical ideal entailed the joy and fulfillment of embodied human community. In the Second Temple period, in texts such as Daniel 12:1–3, these ideas and ideals joined up and surfaced in Israel's conscious faith. Deep currents within Israelite tradition flowed together and poured forth in an explicit expectation of eschatological resurrection. God's reign would only come in fullness, the scriptures now declared, when earth finally beholds a collective end-time raising of the dead…[25]

This illustrates rather nicely the tension between different assessments of the evidence. If Cook was right, then while the nuances of many of the analyses currently in play have much to offer about the way in which beliefs were developed and refined, the question of origins must be reopened. Earlier (indeed, *all*!) texts must always be open to reexamination, to allow any necessary corrective (unlike a Brexit vote, they are renegotiable), even though it is in the nature of the composition and transmission of biblical materials that dating always remains an open question, and always with the proviso that later glosses and additions may be embedded in older texts. And in principle, there should be no restriction on which texts are to be considered. Thus, as well as earlier biblical texts such as those which Cook cited, various key Ugaritic texts and other intellectual currents abroad in the world of Israel and Judah may also be relevant to any reappraisal, as we shall see below.

What is the content of the idea of "resurrection"? We saw above the range of options which have been entertained. Charlesworth noted that it is wrong to restrict enquiry to the

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[23] Matthew 22:23, Mark 12:18, Luke 20:27, Acts 4:1-2, 23:8, 1 Corinthians 15:12.

[24] Charlesworth 2006b: 138. Cf. Tappy 1995: 64: "Generic notions of an afterlife and a judgment of the dead, then, do not appear to have entered the mainstream of Israelite tradition until the later periods (Dan 12:2; Ecc 12:14?; compare the Ethiopic Apoc of Enoch 47:3; 50; 90:20 and 2 Esdras 7; note that Daniel, as a transitional text, includes continuing national judgment and incipient individual judgment)."

[25] Cook 2007: 10.

meaning of one word; rather should we examine a whole nexus of interrelated themes ("a cluster of words"), since the term is something of a portmanteau. Before enlarging on a variety of beliefs, he offered the following primary definition:

> Resurrection denoted the concept of God's raising the body and soul after death (meant literally) to a new and eternal life (not a return to mortal existence). This belief should not be confused with the Hellenistic concept of the immortality of the soul...[26]

He went on to identify sixteen different ways in which the term or its equivalent is used, mostly occurring in an essentially metaphorical sense, only §15, "raising of the individual from death to eternal life"[27], strictly qualifying for the sense he wished to be considered. He perhaps wisely did not at this point differentiate between types of resurrection. He also left out of account the vision in Ezekiel 37, and the similar oracle in Isaiah 26:19, since the usage in these passages was a metaphor for national revival. Contrasting with Cook's assessment cited above, he noted that only later exegesis in the Hellenistic period saw this as a prefigurement of individual destiny[28].

Daniel 12:2-3, composed at some point during the Maccabaean rebellion, is widely regarded as the earliest unambiguous biblical reference to a belief in individual resurrection[29].

2 *wĕrabbîm miyyĕšēnê 'admat-ᶜāpār yāqîṣû 'ēleh lĕḥayyê ᶜôlām wĕ'ēleh laḥărāpôt lĕdir'ôn ᶜôlām :* 3 *wĕhammaśkilîm yazhirû kĕzôhar hārāqîaᶜ ûmaṣdîqê hārabbîm kakôkābîm lĕᶜôlām wāᶜed :*	Then many of those sleeping in the Land of Dust[30] will awake, some to everlasting life, and the rest to contempt and everlasting disgrace. And the wise shall shine like the splendour of the firmament, while those who make many people righteous (shall shine) like the stars, for ever and ever.

It is important to recognise what this passage does not say, as well as what it does. It is reasonable to take *'ēleh... wĕ'ēle...* here to refer to everybody, dividing humanity neatly between the righteous and the wicked, but it is wrong to claim universality for the sentiment. It refers rather to those within Jehud, presumably distinguishing persecuted loyalists from time-serving collaborators, its primary concern being therefore theodicy. It may not even be universal within Jewry, since its primary concern is those who have been punished unjustly for fidelity, and those who have avoided having to account for their impiety. The silent majority, who neither sinned nor were persecuted, may not be the focus of attention here[31]. And the nature of the "everlasting life" on offer is not formally stated to

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[26] Charlesworth 2006a: 2.

[27] Charlesworth 2006a: 12. He summarised the list with the following useful observation: "the varieties and differing taxonomies... represent not a system but an expression of the common human hope that God has the last word, and the future of the righteous will be blessed..." (p. 18). See also Elledge's nicely succinct definition: "[t]o qualify as a resurrection, something must happen to the lifeless body of one who has died" (Elledge 2006: 24).

[28] Charlesworth 2006a: 2-3.

[29] See Elledge 2006: 25-26 ("the earliest definitive literary evidence... in the Bible": 26); Nickelsburg 2006: 23, originally written in 1971, and now qualified by his further observation, pp. 5-6, on the priority of 1 Enoch 1-36, though this is an extrabiblical composition.

[30] Thus JB: a more sensitive rendering of *'admat-ᶜāpār* than the usual "dust of the earth" (RSV, JPS, NEB etc.) See also Tromp 1969: 41, 91.

[31] Nickelsburg 2006: 5.

be bodily resurrection, but may rather be an astralisation, involving a spiritual "body". Nor is it obvious that this is an eschatological transformation (sc. at the end of history, as distinct from the end of the life of those concerned); it may be an imminent irruption by Michael within historical time to redress the moral balance. The passage is thoroughly opaque if we seek a clear teaching, allowing contradictory interpretations along these alternative lines. Elledge made an important point regarding the formulaic nature of verse 2:

> it declares in abbreviated form a belief that had already enjoyed an extended prehistory in the author's historical context. The author of Daniel, therefore, did not invent the resurrection hope.[32]

The immediate prehistory is to be sought in a number of passages in extrabiblical Jewish literature, which explored various possibilities about life after death, themselves almost certainly inspired by critical and threatening events in history (just as Isaiah 26:19 and Ezekiel 37 have similar contexts, in the exilic catastrophe). The literary and theological context of Daniel 12:2-3 was thoroughly explored by G. W. E. Nickelsburg[33]. His exhaustive study also examined every other relevant text. The chief ones predating Daniel are Jubilees 23:16-31[34], Testament of Judah 25, 1 Enoch[35].

Types of Resurrection

There was no generally agreed understanding of resurrection in early Judaism in the post-exilic period[36]. Some passages appear to anticipate a physical resurrection (a "spiritual body" not being specified in the following cases): 2 Baruch 50:2-4; 4 Baruch 6:7; 1 Enoch 51:1-5; Lives of Prophets 3:12 (Ezekiel < Ezekiel 37); 2 Maccabees 7:9, 11, 14 (righteous), 23, 29; Sibylline Oracles 221-26; Testament of Abraham (B) 7:16; Testament of Twelve Patriarchs (Judah) 25; (Zebulun) 10:2; (Benjamin) 10:7. Some passages envisage bones remaining in the ground, and spirits rising: Jubilees 23:31[37]; Testament of Moses 10:28; 4 Maccabees 16:13, 17:12, 18:23; Testament of Abraham (A) 20:11-12; while some passages offer no details of what is entailed: Testament of Judah 25:4, 2 Enoch 42:5; History of the Rechabites 15:1-16:8; Life of Adam and Eve 41:2-3; Lives of Prophets 2:15 (Jeremiah); Psalms of Solomon 3:12; Testament of Job 4:9, 39:12.

Oscar Cullmann wrote a study on the subject, addressed primarily to New Testament issues, but assuming a Jewish background[38], arguing that the concepts of the immortality of the soul and the resurrection of the body were in fundamental opposition, and that the former, a Greek idea, was alien to biblical thought. It was perhaps his insistence on there

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32 Elledge 2006: 27-28. He is a bit optimistic in continuing, "Daniel is far clearer on this matter than its Enochic predecessor".

33 Nickelsburg 2006.

34 "... Roughly contemporary with and perhaps slightly earlier than Daniel and the Testament of Moses": Nickelsburg 2006: 47.

35 Nickelsburg 2006: 5 n. 14. But the view that 1 Enoch predates Daniel is not universal: see Goldstein 1983: 212: "The 'Parables of Enoch' (1 Enoch 37-71) are difficult to date, but I think the mention at 1 Enoch 56.5 of the Parthians as menace to Judaea excludes their having been written before the first century BCE", cited with approval by Zinner 2014: 119. See n. 29.

36 For the range of beliefs see Nickelsburg 2006 *passim*.

37 Though see Wintermute 1985: 102 n. p.

38 Cullmann 1956.

being no room for flexibility which brought sharp responses from various scholars[39]. James Barr in particular used Cullmann as a foil for his altogether more satisfying analysis of the material, though Suriano drew attention to shortcomings in his treatment[40].

Possible Contexts for the Rise of Resurrection Beliefs

How is the initial appearance of belief in resurrection in Judaism to be accounted for? Here are some possibilities. I list them in receding historical order, from the Maccabaean period, with the exception of the last (§7). We should bear in mind that the belief may have developed incrementally, with hints and suggestions, expressions of wishful thinking, the adoption of fashionable views (expressed, for example, in the influence of neighbouring cultures in burial practice). The diversity of views expressed in the passages cited above indicates a fluidity of views from the earliest forms down into the early Christian era. In some quarters debate and doctrinal disagreement has still not ceased!

§1 Theodicy in the Maccabaean Period

Theodicy seems to be the whole point behind Daniel 12:2-3. The idea developed in the face of palpable injustice, as a way of maintaining God's integrity in the face of evil, especially in the particularly difficult context of people being martyred for their faith. It had the added advantage of achieving a kind of justice for the victims of oppression. But this really has a weakened explanatory value if the idea was already present in earlier compositions. It must have been building on foundations already present. So we are forced to go further back.

§2 Persian influence

Jehud was under Persian political control for two centuries[41]. We should expect at least some Iranian impact on theological matters, on either of two fronts: the general absorption of new intellectual ideas, and a specific theological reaction to any perceived threats (as with Genesis 1 as a likely challenge to the appeal of the theology of Marduk in Babylon). This does not seem likely, in the view of most scholars. There is certainly little evidence of Persian religious ideas filtering through, though something of its dualistic cosmology has been

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39 E.g. Barr 1993: 1-3, 21-24 (where he criticised Cullmann's view that death was viewed as unnatural in biblical thought); Nickelsberg 2006: 219-23 ("[Cullmann] appears to assume that there was a single Jewish view on the subject…" [p. 219]); revisited by Grappe 2014: 15-18; Suriano 2016.

40 Suriano 2016: 2: "neither Cullmann nor Barr were able to offer any specific insight into the cultural practices that informed the depiction of death in the Hebrew Bible."

41 See Wyatt 2009: 174:

> "While scholars have broadly sought in vain to find clear evidence of any influence, it should be remembered that post-exilic Judaism developed during two centuries of Persian imperial control of Jehud. It is scarcely possible that the Jews remained entirely unaware of the Zoroastrian interest in eschatology, a concept hitherto alien to Jewish thought."

To this is appended n. 20 (*loc. cit.*): "Cf. Zaehner 1961: 57–58. He was right to point out that we know next to nothing about general developments in Zoroastrian thought in the Achaemenid period, so that the debt remains unquantifiable; but he considered that in eschatological matters there is a case to answer. Fire, as in the Lake of Fire, was strictly part of a judgmental process rather than a destination for the damned, whose abode was rather icy coldness (*ibid.* 307–8). Hell was in any case temporal in Zoroastrian thought, since the final Rehabilitation (*Frashkart*) redeemed all souls."

discerned in some Qumran material. It should be remembered however that our surviving texts belong to communities particularly opposed to any foreign influence. But perhaps Iranian ideas did effect beliefs among the wider population. Later Zoroastrianism had a clear doctrine of physical resurrection, but for the Achaemenid period, our information is sketchy in the extreme, so that little more can be said[42].

But there are other more positive assessments of the matter. This is a further citation from *Encyclopædia Iranica*,[43] which offers a rather different perspective:

> The arguments for connecting the Jewish developments in the field of eschatology to an Iranian influence can be set forth as follows. There was no doctrine of Jewish eschatology up to the end of the Old Testament period—neither individual judgment nor universal judgment. There was no notion of heaven and hell, nor a description of a reconstitution of the world after its dissolution at the end of time. There seems also to have been no idea of a systematic and universal raising of the dead at the end of times to undergo judgment, reward, and punishment. All these appear rather abruptly in Jewish writings that were composed during the last two centuries B.C.E. and subsequently in Christian writings. Since this was a period that followed a long Persian dominion in Palestine and an even longer period during which a substantial Jewish Diaspora had lived continuously in Mesopotamia and Persia, the emergence of a fully developed eschatology in Jewish circles, and one that displays such great resemblance to the complex of Persian ideas, cannot be a coincidence and must be explained as a result of contact between the two cultures. It seems rather unlikely that these ideas were originally developed among Jews, and that they were borrowed by the Persians, who constituted the dominant culture. The many eschatological allusions in the Gāθās and in the Younger Avesta, although they are not always entirely unequivocal, seem to guarantee a certain measure of antiquity and continuity to these ideas in Persia, while we lack similar indices in Judaism. The strong dualistic character of Jewish eschatology seems also to suggest the likelihood of a borrowing from Iran. Zoroastrian eschatology seems to possess a certain coherence and structure, given the large role that the dichotomy between the notions of *mēnōg* and *gētīg* plays in it. This can explain many of the duplications in the narrative, while no similar mechanism is available in the complex of eschatological notions in Judaism. The influence of Persian ideas is particularly easy to show in many details where there is great similarity between some of the rabbinic writings and the Zoroastrian books; for example, it is possible to cite the discussions of the

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[42] Note this passage from *Encyclopædia Iranica* (article Indo-Iranian Religion, accessed 8 March 2017 at: http://www.iranicaonline.org/articles/indo-iranian-religion):

> Some idea, at least an embryonic one, of a paradisiacal existence was not altogether unfamiliar to the primitive Iranian mind, although it cannot have been marked by strictly ethical values. A happy life after death must have been reserved for an elite of priests and warriors, while the background of individual eschatology must have been dominated by the belief in a grey, shadowy survival of the spirits of the dead in a nether region, which was approached along the paths trodden by deceased ancestors (Oldenberg, pp. 546f.). There is an echo of a similar afterlife, which is neither good nor bad, in the Zoroastrian concept of an intermediate zone, halfway between heaven and hell, for those who have deserved neither too much nor too little in their life on earth... while those who succeed in possessing Truth (Av. *Aša*; Ved. *ṛta*) and who are therefore *ašavan* or *ṛtāvan*... are assured of a state of blessedness.

This may be supplemented by the further passage (Eschatology i. In Zoroastrianism and Zoroastrian Influence, accessed 8 March 2017 at:
http://www.iranicaonline.org/articles/eschatology-i), with my italics:

> Faith in the events beyond life on this earth is attested in the Zoroastrian scriptures from the very first, from the Gāθās. This faith developed and became central to later Zoroastrianism so that it colors almost all aspects of the religious life. It also seems to have had *a deep impact on neighboring religions, notably on Judaism,* and through it on Christianity and Islam, as well as on Manicheism. (My italics.)

[43] http://www.iranicaonline.org/articles/eschatology-i.

> spirits accompanying the soul on its journey or of the fate of people whose virtues and sins are equal (cf. Böklen, pp. 40 ff.). One late Jewish *midrash*, called "The Ascension of Moses" is built very much like the *Ardā Wirāz-nāmag*. It exists in several different Hebrew versions and also in a Judaeo-Persian one (a study and edition of the Judaeo-Persian text is in Netzer; for a selection of scholarly discussions of this problem see Böklen; Winston; Shaked, 1971; Hultgård; and, against the assumption of Persian influence on Judaism, König). [All references in bibliography below.]

Some of the judgments expressed here concerning the late development of Jewish eschatology will not bear scrutiny in the light of our discussion, in view of the extensive revaluation of the subject in modern archaeological studies. But the matter of indebtedness is still one for which a case can be made.

C. Grappe has also argued for the influence of Zoroastrian thought on the development of the Jewish concept:

> So we can say that from the perspective of the history of religions, the concept of the resurrection of the dead appears for the first time in Iran, and further, that vertical, spatial eschatology and linear, temporal eschatology, are superimposed, a superimposition which we shall encounter again in ancient Jewish and Christian representations.[44]

Another factor of possible significance to be dated to the Persian period (specifically the early post-exilic period) may be explored in the light of Carole Newsom's 2017 Tyrwhitt Lecture[45], in which she argued that evidence of a growth in the capacity for introspection in biblical literature was a feature of compositions datable to this era. She noted di Vito's interesting paper[46], which had stressed (in her view, overstressed) the "embeddedness" of the individual Israelite psyche (my term, not his, for *nepeš*). If some cultural and psychological development is to be discerned in the transition from pre-exilic to post-exilic society, is it not possible to see in the evolution of beliefs concerning the afterlife, the transition from the essentially collective destiny of being "gathered (or "added") to one's forefathers (or people, kinsmen, clan…)", which is reflected in the collective burials of the Iron Age[47], to a more individualistic pattern in the post-exilic period, perhaps reflecting incipient ideas about

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[44] Grappe 2014: 37-39:

> On peut dire ainsi que, du point de vue de l'histoire des religions, le concept de resurrection des morts apparaît pour la première fois en Iran et aussi que s'y superposent eschatologie verticale, spatiale, et eschatologie linéaire, temporelle, superposition que nous retrouverons plus tard en abordant representations juives et chrétiennes anciennes.

Cf. Zaehner 1961: 316: "Of all the doctrines of Christianity that the modern scientific mind finds hard to swallow, the resurrection of the body is the hardest. This dogma, which Christianity inherited from Zoroastrianism, the Zoroastrians themselves find hard." Earlier, pp. 20-21, 51-52, and 57-58, he had touched on Zoroastrian influence on Judaism. Martin-Achard 1960: 186-205 (esp. 186-195) cautiously allowed some Iranian influence.

[45] Newsom 2017. I am very grateful to Professor Newsom to be given access to a PDF of this study, as I approached the deadline for this paper long before hers would be published.

[46] Di Vito 1999. She also noted Frevel's critique of di Vito: Frevel 2017, in press.

[47] See Bloch-Smith 1992, 2002. Suriano forthcoming offers a detailed analysis of the tombs with relation to biblical texts and other Iron Age inscriptions. Following on from a considerable diversity of tomb-types, tombs in later Iron Age Judah were overwhelmingly of the multiple occupancy bench-tomb type (Bloch-Smith 2002: 127; Suriano 2016, forthcoming). Judahite society, as the main source of the Old Testament tradition, provides the bulk of our textual information about mortuary belief and practice, and the correlation of this tomb-type with the patrimonial clan-system of the dead, after protracted rituals, being gathered (or added) to the ancestors (in the literal sense of added to a pile of bones!).

individual resurrection. A shift towards individualism had been proposed already within the Iron Age, according to Halpern and Finkelstein[48], attributed by them to the trauma of the Assyrian invasion of the Levant at the end of the eighth century. This analysis was rejected by Bloch-Smith[49], but more by way of delaying such a transition than denying it. The matter of individual consciousness, by which I mean a consciousness of oneself in opposition or distinction from the collectivity of one's community, is somewhat elusive, but may be discerned in legal developments (that is, regarding such concepts as individual responsibility and liability) as reflected in passages like Ezekiel 18:2 and Jeremiah 31:29-30, where the proverb of the sour grapes in the former leads on to Jeremiah's reference to a legal principle[50].

The interesting argument of Blenkinsopp should also be noted, which proposed that the objection of Deuteronomy towards the cult of ancestors was politically motivated: "The laws concerning death rites and forbidding commerce with the dead in Deuteronomy were therefore part of a broader strategy of undermining the lineage system to which the individual household (*bêt 'āb*) belonged"[51]. The state stood to benefit from what could amount in some circumstances to an expropriation of private (family) property, the social tension incurred showing nicely in the narrative of Naboth's vineyard (1 Kings 21:1-15). If this is sustainable, then insofar as it probably contributed to a) a breakdown of the clan in favour of the individual and b) an undermining of the old family-land tenure nexus, a process already under way in both Israel and Judah by the eighth century, according to Blenkinsopp, provides an interesting example of the law of unforeseen consequences[52]. On the other hand, it is clear that there was resistance to such a programme, illustrated most clearly in the land-claim element in the (exilic) patriarchal narratives and their burial traditions. The continued use of family burial plots might also be construed as passive resistance against the encroachments of the state.

§3 Exilic Influence

The trauma of the exile, with its deportations, sack of the temple, and hugely destructive effects on Judah's fabric, altogether more substantial regarding the destruction of the community, is generally agreed to be a watershed in the development of Judahite (henceforth developing into Jewish) religion. Much of the early literature in the Bible was either written or reedited in its shadow. Traces are seen in most of the compositions. Interesting examples in the light of the present discussion are the two prophetic passages noted above, Isaiah 26:19, and Ezekiel 37. The former reads:

yiḥyû mētêkā nĕbēlātî yĕqûmûn	May your dead live! May their bodies rise!
hāqîṣû wĕrannĕnû šōkĕnê ʿāpār	Awake and sing for joy, you who dwell in the dust!
kî ṭal 'ôrōt ṭallêkā	For your dew is a dew of light,

48 Halpern 1991; Finkelstein 1999.

49 See Bloch-Smith 2002: 121-23.

50 Contrast the strict group-solidarity presupposed in the Achan narrative, Joshua 7:16-26. For another passage addressing the issue see Ezekiel 14:12-23.

51 Blenkinsopp 1995: 1.

52 Blenkinsopp, 1995: 15, envisaged the codification he had in mind taking place in Judah, and therefore supposedly after 621, if Ur-Deuteronomy was the "book" "discovered" in the temple (2 Kings 22:8).

wā'āre rĕpā'îm tappîl and the earth will give birth[53] to the shades[54].

This certainly has the appearance of a declaration of belief in physical resurrection, especially since the second colon speaks in terms of waking up, and the fourth in terms of birthing. But we should avoid drawing conclusions more in line with later disputes on the process, if the individual text does not *require* such an interpretation. And Nickelsburg, even while drawing attention to the similarity between this verse and Daniel 12:2, rather qualified such an assessment:

> … in [the] context of judgment and restoration, the passage uses language of the resurrection of the dead. But the literal understanding of this language is not *a priori* certain, for such imagery appears in pre-exilic and exilic literature not as a description of a people who were literally dead, but as a picture of the restoration of Israel. According to Hosea [5:15-6:3], the people were saying that YHWH would bring them to life again. Ezekiel [37] pictures the exile and restoration of Israel in his vision of the valley of the dry bones.[55]

The passage from Ezekiel describes the prophet's vision of the valley of dry bones. The narrative is the form of a dialogue, in which Yahweh asks the prophet what he sees, and in response to the description of the bone-strewn valley, instructs Ezekiel to "prophesy" (*hinnābē'*). The bones rearticulate themselves, and then on further instruction, breath comes from the four winds (Hebrew *rûaḥ* is used in both instances) to reanimate them.

I would not dispute the collective nature of either of these passages: both are indeed metaphors for national revival, all the more poignant for hoping for a future event. But to use that view as somehow negating their relevance to the idea under discussion here, of individual resurrection, would be premature. The best way to consider the necessary linkage between the communal and the individual is to see the changes in mortuary practice which occurred over the same period[56].

§4 Egyptian Practice

So far our discussion has addressed ideas which relate to society as a whole. Kings throughout the ancient Near East were the subject of complex rituals, which not only consolidated their power, but encapsulated national aspirations. They would all have endorsed Louis XIV's assertion, "L'état, c'est moi!" The king was the epitome of society[57]. In Egypt, the mortuary belief-system was very complex, involving identification with various deities, notably Osiris and the Sun, spiritual ascent among the stars, a continuing subterranean life in avian form[58], divine rebirth (mothered by Isis and Nephthys), and resurrection. We know little of mortuary beliefs concerning the majority of society in the Old Kingdom: individual burials in simple tombs contained a few grave-goods, but no textual material. The nobility had massive mastabas, modelled on their estates while alive,

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53 The earth is Adam's mother in Genesis 2:7; cf. Job 1:21.

54 Whether or not any ideological dimension should be discerned in *rĕpā'îm* here is imponderable. But the term is certainly intended to contrast with its appearance in v. 14, referring to foreign oppressors. On the background to the Rephaim see Rouillard 1999; Wyatt 2007b; Doak 2012.

55 Nickelsburg 2006: 31.

56 Most recently Suriano forthcoming.

57 This is expressed in Genesis 2 in the figure of representative Adam, who is described in royal terms. See Wyatt 2014.

58 Korpel 1996.

and implying some hope for a continuance of some of the benefits of opulence[59]. With kings, the Pyramid Texts from the tombs of Unas, Teti, Pepi I and II, Merenre and various queens, give us an insight into the details of belief. Resurrection (often in combination with other ideas) was one of the many options, as illustrated in PT 373:

> Aha! Aha! Raise yourself, Teti!
> Receive your head,
> assemble your bones for you,
> collect your limbs for you,
> clear away the earth on your flesh for you,
> receive for you your unmouldering bread
> and unrotting beer sour...[60]

Over centuries, into the Middle and New Kingdoms, the beliefs represented by the Pyramid Texts filtered down by way of the Coffin Texts[61] (originally restricted to the nobility) into the Book of the Dead[62], which gave a fairly democratic expression to the hopes. The overriding theme in all the recensions of the tradition was the identification of the deceased with Osiris. He was "raised", even physically reconstituted after his dismemberment by Seth, but his restored state was confined to the Underworld (*duȝt*), where he ruled as judge of the dead. So there was a fundamental distinction between this and other conceptions of resurrection. While there is no direct evidence of Egyptian eschatology filtering through into nascent Jewish belief, Late Bronze Philistine and Iron Age Phoenician (recycled!) anthropoid coffins suggest that some may have had an influence there (that is, in an adjacent culture) in the Late Bronze and Early Iron; later, in the post-exilic period, several Jewish communities, Elephantine (already, preceding the exile), Daphne (Tahpanhes), Memphis, Leontopolis, Alexandria, lived in Egypt, and would certainly have come into informal contact with Egyptian mortuary practice.

§5 Ugaritic Royal Beliefs

The Ugaritic evidence has given rise to two positive claims for a blissful afterlife, with implications for the interpretation of the biblical evidence. Mitchell Dahood insisted that the term *ḥayyîm* regularly had the sense of a blissful *post-mortem* "life"[63], while Klaas Spronk,

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59 See conveniently Emery 1961.

60 Allen 2015: 87, my verse arrangement. See also PTs 355, 364-367, 412, 437, 457, 459, 482, 483, 536, 537, 548, 556, 576, 577, 578, 596, 603, 604, 611, 612, 619, 620, 662, 665, 665abc, 666, 667c, 676, 670, 677, 694, 697, 700, 701, 703 among others. Many blend the resurrection with alternative, or complementary destinies. Resurrection generally became specifically Osirian in nature, involving a bodily resurrection, though experienced as a continuing subterranean existence, with the estate, furniture, pastimes and servants to ensure a comfortable afterlife.

61 English translation in Faulkner 2004. In CT 761 the corpse is told to raise itself, its members identified with various gods: resurrection and apotheosis.

62 English translations in Allen 1974, Faulkner 1985. BD 89 is a spell enabling the soul (*bȝ*) to regain the corpse; BD 92 opens the tomb to allow egress. The *bȝ* is comparable to the Hebrew concept of the *nepeš*, a key element in understanding human post-mortem destiny. Recent discussions relevant to the present study are Johnson 1964: 3-22; Barr 1992: 36-43, 102-15; Nutkowicz 2006: 244-55: Steiner 2015 *passim*. See also the implications of the Kitamuwa stela (Herrmann—Schloen 2014) raised by Steiner 2015: 10-22, 128-62.

63 Dahood 1960, 1970.

endorsing his view, wrote of a "beatific afterlife"[64]. But there is no serious justification on the basis of the evidence we have (see discussion of *Aqhat* below) for seeing this "life" as a post-resurrection experience[65]. However, having said that, if we concede that the intellectual grasp of the idea was perhaps being explored in the *Baal* Cycle and *Aqhat*, it is not impossible that the materials analysed by Dahood and Spronk reflect further such explorations. I referred to these views in a previous discussion[66]. For non-royal ideas we should turn in the absence of directly relevant textual evidence to that of the archaeological record[67]. S. Marchegay noted that in the Late Bronze, individual and communal tombs were both used, which leaves us, on the basis of how different funerary systems are generally supposed to reflect differing ideologies, with no firm basis for an overall assessment. The duties of the son listed in *Aqhat* provide general principles of filial piety, and some of the contents are best explained has having a funerary reference[68]. as a catalogue of duties, while it has royal overtones, since Danel is a king, it probably nevertheless represents a stereotypical view of filial duties in a patrimonial household.

Ugaritian royal ideology has a number of points in common with Judahite ideology, and so should also be considered here, in spite of the temporal and geographical distance. Again, it is not a matter of claiming direct influence, but rather of seeing a broader West Semitic range of beliefs and practices, attested elsewhere, as perhaps at Qatna, and in the Levantine kingdoms to which we have witness in the Amarna letters (Akko, Ashkelon, Beirut, Byblos,

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64 Spronk 1986.

65 For critiques see Vawter 1972, Smith—Smith 1988.

66 See Wyatt 2009:164:

> Dahood's valiant attempt to discern a beatific afterlife not only in the Hebrew Psalms, but in the older Ugaritic literature, is to be considered a magnificent failure…

and *idem*., 2012, 259 n. 3:

> The attempt of Dahood 1960, 1970, xli-lii, to see a primitive form of the beatific vision in the Bible and even in Ugaritic literature seems seriously to overstate the case, though he provided a useful counter to the common perception that later Israel never had any belief in an afterlife until the Maccabaean crisis forced an eschatological theology upon the Jews. For assessment of Dahood see Spronk 1986, 77-81. In the rest of his book Spronk was fairly positive about later intra-biblical developments in this direction. For recent general discussions of the theme see Barr 1992: Johnston 2002; Levenson 2006; Cook 2007.

Note Cook's assessment, 2007, 2:

> Whereas many mainline biblical scholars of the twentieth century tended to see living souls of the dead nowhere in the Hebrew Bible, this new camp tends to see them hidden throughout… It is fair to say that biblical scholars are currently divided between the position that ancient Israelites had no belief in spirits and the position that they had rather pronounced dealings with them."

The writing of this paper, and in particular the appearance of Lang 2017 as I came close to completing it, and taken into account below, has obliged me to consider the case reopened, at least with regard to the biblical evidence. I think that Dahood and Spronk are too optimistic concerning the Ugaritic material, but the biblical material is another matter. However, a complete reappraisal is beyond the scope of this paper.

67 See Salles 1995, Marchegay 2007.

68 See Wyatt 2002: 255-59, 2012: 76-78.

Gezer, Hazor, Jerusalem, Lachish, Megiddo, Shechem, Tyre), to which the later Palestinian kingdoms were natural heirs, despite the disruption of the "crisis years"[69].

In a previous study I examined the relationship of some passages in the *Baal* Cycle with the same formulations in *Kirta*[70], which indicated, I suggested, that the Ugaritian king "shared in the ontology of Baal". Two studies, by Mark Smith and Matthew Suriano, have examined the restoration to life of Baal (KTU 1.6 iii 0-[1]-21) in the light of the implications of the royal funerary text KTU 1.161[71], which would appear to confirm this assessment. Though "dying and rising" gods have been seen at every turn in some older scholarship, Baal is the only ancient Near Eastern deity whose restoration to life survives scrutiny[72]. For Baal himself, the death and resurrection sequence is part of the plot of the *Baal* Cycle, peculiar to Ugarit, and without other parallels among storm-gods. The close relationship of king and god in this context lends a peculiar importance for our present discussion to this passage from the funerary text (KTU 1.161.20-l.e.). It appears to contain the instructions for the rites, though it also appears to cite excerpts from the liturgy:

20 [ ]*aṯr*.[b]*ʿlk.l.k*[i].*aṯr*	After your lords, from the throne,
21 *bʿlk.arṣ.rd.*	After your lords into the underworld go down:
arṣ 22 *rd.*	into the underworld go down
w.špl.ʿpr	and fall into the dust,
tḥt 23 *sdn.w.rdn.*	down to Sidanu-and-Radanu,
tḥt.ṯr 24 *ʿl*{.}*imn.*	down to the eternal one, Tharu,
tḥt.rpim.qdmym	down to the ancient *Rapi'ūma*,
25 *tḥt.ʿmṯtmr.mlk*	down to ʿAmmithtamru the king
l.e. *tḥṯ.unq*[md].*mlk*	and also down to Niqmaddu the king."

Smith and Suriano argued, rightly in my view, that the person addressed here is the living king, ʿAmmurapi, who is burying his father and *at the same time* assuming power as his successor. His descent and later ascent constitute an integral part of the rite of power-transference from one generation to the next. We may reasonably think that Baal's descent and ascent in KTU 1.5-1.6 is modelled on that of the successor king in the rites. We may almost say that kingship has died with Niqmaddu IV (the monarch named in the last line cited here), and is reborn in the person of ʿAmmurapi II[73]. Do we perhaps have here an early form of the belief in resurrection? While the Ugaritic text tell us nothing on the subject (though see next paragraph), that in itself is scarcely proof of the absence of the idea. It is comparable to the Egyptian doctrine of the Ka, in which this divine element ("[royal] power"), is incarnate in each successive king.

One Ugaritic passage *does* appear to deal directly with the concept of resurrection, if that is what "immortality" (*blmt*) here means, and may conceivably be conceptually related to the present context. This is the episode of ʿAnat's offer to Aqhat while trying to persuade him to part with his bow. His response however, is a firm rejection of what is on offer:

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69 See Joukowsky—Ward 1992, Cline 2014. For an excellent recent survey of Levantine conditions from the Late Bronze into the Iron Age, see Benz 2016.

70 Baal's fate and Kirta's are compared in the formulaic usage in KTU 1.5 vi 3-5 || 1.5 vi 26-28 || 1.6 ii 15-17 || 1.16 iii 2-4. See Wyatt 1997, reprinted 2005: 133-49; 2007a.

71 Smith 1998; Suriano 2009. See also Wyatt forthcoming A (originally written as the first part of this discussion, until hived off *via* the Paris 2016 conference for publication in *UF* 48).

72 In addition to references above, see Mettinger 2001.

73 Freu's revised numbering of the kings of Ugarit: Freu 2006:23.

26 [y]*irš.ḥym.laqhat.ǵzr*	'Ask for life, O hero Aqhat:
27 *irš.ḥym.watnk*	Ask for life and I shall give (it) you,
blmt 28 *wašlḥk.*	immortality and I shall bestow (it) on you:
ašsprk.ᶜm.bᶜl 29 *šnt.*	I shall make you number years with Baal:
ᶜm.bn.il.tspr.yrḫm	With the son of El you shall number months.
30 *kbᶜl.kyḥwy.*	"Like Baal he shall live indeed!
yᶜšr.ḥwy.	Alive, he shall be feasted,
yᶜš 31 *r.wyšqynh.*	he shall be feasted and given to drink.
ybd.wyšr.ᶜlh 32 *nᶜm*xx	The minstrel shall intone and sing concerning him".'
tˡᶜ*nynn.*	[She] said to him:
ap.ank.aḥwy 33 *aqht*[.ǵz]*r.*	'Thus shall I make Aqhat the hero live!'
*wyᶜn.aqht,ǵz*r	But Aqhat the hero replied:
34 *al.tšrgn.ybtltm*	'Do not deceive me, O Virgin,
dm.l ǵzr 35 *šrgk. ḫḫm .*	for to a hero your deceit is rubbish!
mt.uḫryt.mh.yqḥ	Man, (at his) end, what will he receive?
36 *mh.yqḥ.mt.aṯryt.*	What will he receive, a man (as his) destiny?
spsg.ysk 37 [l]*riš.*	<S> ilver[?] will be poured on his head,
ḥrṣ.lẓr.qdqdy	gold[?] on top of his skull,
38 [ap]*mt.kl.amt.*	[and] the death of all I shall die,
wan.mtm.amt	and I shall surely die.

This passage has proved rather controversial in Ugaritic exegesis. Dahood and Spronk wished to see in it a serious adumbration of later ideas[74]. Others have seen in it a vacuous, flattering offer by ᶜAnat, which Aqhat rightly rejects. Aqhat's response is not to be seen as pessimistic, a sad acceptance of the human lot. It is rather an allusion to the type of royal burial which was common in Bronze and Iron Age contexts[75]. But its contrast with the material cited above (KTU 1.6, 1.161) is puzzling. If ᶜAnat's offer can be squared with that (because Baal died and rose, and "kingship" dies and rises, a "ritual metaphor", a performative gesture for the successor king's legitimate accession), which is perhaps to be expected, and therefore is not vacuous within the context of royal ideology, why does *Prince* Aqhat scornfully reject what is on offer? The overall plot of the story is perhaps the key: it is a study of impetuous hubris on the part of a prince who is not prepared to accept the constraints of his position, to say nothing of basic courtesy to a goddess, just as Yaṣibu, with singularly bad timing, forgets himself in challenging Kirta for the throne. In other words, Aqhat's words are not a rejection of funerary norms (his description is, after all, of part of the process), but an outburst of emotional immaturity.

§6 Judahite Royal Beliefs

While we have no certain Judahite parallel to KTU 1.161 as a currently performed rite, it is likely that should we should consider the satirical passage in Isaiah 14:9-20 to be conceptually related to it. The *Rapi'ūma* (deified dead kings) of the Ugaritic text are the

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74 See n. 66 above. Smith—Bloch-Smith 1988: 279 remarked, writing of Spronk's interpretation of this passage: "Unlike most scholars Spronk takes this claim seriously ". In their conclusion (p. 284) they further remarked "Ultimately the sparseness of the data prevents scholarship from conclusively establishing beliefs in resurrection or 'beatific afterlife' in Iron Age Israel".

75 For discussion of the "gold… silver…" problem, see my observations in forthcoming A, n. 36. On Aqhat as royal (Danil his father being a king) see Wyatt 1999: 249-51 and 2002: 307 n. 250. For Ugaritian funerary practice see Salles 1995, Marchegay 2007.

exact ideological counterparts to the *Rĕpā'îm* of Isaiah 14:9, which also identifies them as kings (vv. 9-10); except that Isaiah turns the solemn rite into a monstrous charade, mocking the dead king, and denying him a proper burial. I have suggested that the Isaianic passage is actually modelled on the same procedures (that is, a historical Judahite funerary rite based on the same principles as the Ugaritic example)[76]. If this interpretation is correct, then we should envisage the new king accompanying his father's corpse into the tomb[77].

Isaiah 14 focuses on a royal funeral. A recent study of the royal psalms has proposed a striking incidental parallel to this[78]. David Beadle has noted that a number of psalms exhibit a ritual complex involving descent into the underworld, followed by ascension to heaven (primarily Psalms 2, 18, 24, 89:2-38; and for part of the pattern, 110). This ritual process, if real, would take place at the king's accession, thus conforming to the double aspect of KTU 1.161. In their present form, Beadle argued, these psalms are post-exilic, and part of his analysis considered the final product to be a critique of monarchy, the ideology "subverted" by its formulation. The quasi-shamanistic pattern of this material, recognised by Beadle, is similar to such echoes discerned in the Hekhalot literature by James Davila[79]. If these analyses, Beadle's and Davila's, are cogent, then we should perhaps see outliers of a largely submerged ferment of ideas, which later burst into the open in the late Hellenistic period, by then probably infected by Iranian ideas.

§7 Levitical Beliefs

An entirely unexpected avenue of enquiry was opened up by a perceptive new study by Bernhard Lang[80]. This raised the possibility of the Levites having a significant role in the development of a new way of considering death and its aftermath. Lang began his discussion with the observation that "[d]omestic religion, essential to the household but closed to all others, was the constituent principle of the ancient family"[81]. This is in accord with the discussion above concerning mortuary practices, particularly as observed in pre-exilic Judah, along patrimonial (extended family) lines. The Levites were an exception, being outside the normal domestic clan-ancestors-land-ownership framework, as ably described by Herbert Brichto[82]. They were thus disqualified from participation in the normal processes[83]. Their inheritance (*naḥălâ*)[84] was not in land (giving access to the conventional

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76 See Wyatt 2010: 73-75. The view expressed there that it is simply the dead king who descends is to be modified in view of the discussion by Smith and Suriano cited above.

77 See also Shipp 2002:124-25 (though "the 'lord'" on p. 124 [bottom] must now be identified as Niqmaddu IV).

78 Beadle 2017.

79 Davila 2001. See also Alexander 1977: 172, on 3 Enoch. Note that Blenkinsopp called the "witch" of Endor "a woman who commands the spirits, a female shaman" (Blenkinsopp 1995: 14).

80 Lang 2017.

81 Lang 2017: 65. He based his argument on Fustel de Coulanges 1864 and Brichto 1973.

82 Brichto 1973.

83 Lang 2017: 66: "By not owning landed property, the Levites opted out of the cultural complex of 'kin, cult, land, and afterlife in Sheol' and created their own cultural and religious pattern. However, this pattern remains unexamined, leaving a gap in the relevant secondary literature." As is indicated in the discussion above, it seems that we can now qualify Sheol as an intermediate stage on the journey of the dead. If this is the case, then the frequent biblical references to it as a place of fear presumably express

sharing with ancestors), but with Yahweh (Numbers 18:20). Lang argued that Psalm 16—a psalm with many textual problems—reflects the initiation of the Levite into membership of the group, and describes his rejection of the conventional land-based *mores* in favour of the distinctive levitical devotion to the deity.

Here is my translation of the psalm, informed by Lang's insights:

1 *šāmrēnî 'ēl kî-ḥāsîtî bāk*	Keep me, El, for I take refuge in you.
2 **'āmart<î> layhwh*	I say to Yahweh
'ădōnāy 'attā ṭôbātî	my Lord are you, my benefactor.
bal-ᶜālekā 3 {*li*} *qĕdôšîm*	Not above you[85] are the holy ones,
'ăšer bā'āreṣ hēmāh	those who are in the underworld;
**wĕ'arûrîm kol-*ḥapṣê-bām*	and cursed[86] are all those who are devoted to them:
4 *yirbû ᶜaṣṣĕbôtām 'aḥēr māhārû*	the idols multiply, of those who hasten[87] after them!
bal-'āssîk niskêhem middām	I shall not pour out their libations of blood[88],
ûbal-'ăšer 'et-šĕmôtām ᶜal-śĕpātāy	and their names will never be on my lips[89]!
5 *yhwh mĕnot-ḥelqî wĕkôsî*	Yahweh, the portion of my heritage[90]
	and my cup (are you);
'attāh tômîk gôrālî	you hold my destiny (in your hands).
6 *ḥăbālîm nāpĕlû-lî bannĕᶜimîm*	The threads[91] have fallen in my favour in the paradisal
	places.[92]
'ap-naḥălāt šāpĕrāh ᶜālāy	and my inheritance falls to me.
7 *'ăbārēk 'et-yhwh 'ăšer yĕᶜāṣānî*	I shall bless Yahweh who counsels me,
'ap-lēlôt yissĕrûnî kilyôtāy	and by night my heart shall instruct me.
8 *šiwwîtî yhwh lĕnegdî tāmîd*	I keep Yahweh ever before me;
kî mîmînî bal-'emôṭ	indeed, (with him) at my right hand, I shall not be moved.

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the anxiety of the living that they will be caught there, without being able to complete their journey to the ancestral ingathering.

84 See Lewis 1991 (especially 605-8) for the legal and social significance of the technical term, and his discussion of the link between land-ownership and burial rights (resuming Brichto 1973 and anticipating Stavrakopoulou 2010.

85 MT: implying rank, allowing them to be subordinate. Or (*BHS* app.) {*bal*} *bil-ᶜādêkā*, "apart from you", denying their existence.

86 Reading *wĕ'arûrîm* for MT *wĕ'addîrê*.

87 "Devoted… hasten…": translating "travail pains… lust…", Dahood's intertextual reference to KTU 1.12 i 38-39 is interesting: Dahood 1965: 88. Cf. Wyatt 2002: 164 n. 12. Opponents of a Dahoodian approach should remember that in poetry, many allusive elements beside the niceties of modern philology may inform a writer's choice of words. Cf. my remarks in Wyatt forthcoming b, n. 43.

88 As a number of commentators have observed, libations of water would sustain the dead; libations of blood suggests a cult of the dead, or involvement in necromancy. Cf. Odysseus offering blood libations to bring up the dead (Odyssey 11:23-36). The ritual probably falls short of cult, in the sense of worship of a deity, except in the mind of the psalmist! The text reflects the mentality of fierce devotion to a jealous god, which tends to intemperance of language. This could be a libel on ancestral devotion.

89 Naming the dead (and so implicitly remembering them) is part of the whole complex of giving the dead substance and an inheritance with the living. See Sanders 2012.

90 √*ḥlq* II: the term anticipates *naḥălāh* in v. 6. The three terms *ḥelqî*, *nĕᶜimîm*, *naḥălāt*, belong together, the two legal terms framing the substance of the inheritance: here a paradisal home. The mythological root of this language is the deity gaining a temple.

91 Cf. the Greek motif of the thread of the Moirai ("Measurers"), spun by Clotho, measured by Lachesis and cut by Atropos, signifying a person's destiny

92 I have translated the term *ad contextum* (Wyatt 1996: 40, 2002: 126 n. 50, 160 n. 32) to indicate the nuances.

9 *lākēn śāmaḥ libbî wayyāgel kĕbôdî*	So my heart rejoices, and my liver is joyful;
'ap-bĕśārî yiškōn lābeṭaḥ	even my body remains secure.
10 *kî lō'-taᶜăzōb napšî liš'ôl*	For you will not abandon my soul to Sheol;
lō'-tittēn ḥăsîdĕkā lir'ôt šaḥat	you will not allow your faithful one to see the pit.
11 *tôdiᶜēnî 'ōraḥ ḥayyîm*	You will teach me the path of life.
śōbaᶜ śĕmāḥôt 'et-pānêkā	(There is a) surfeit of joy in your presence[93];
nĕᶜimôt bîmînĕkā neṣaḥ	The paradisal delights at your right hand[94] are for ever!

"Paradisal places" in v. 6 translates Hebrew *nĕᶜimîm*, (note also the "paradisal delights"—*nĕᶜimôt*—of v. 11) which must have some technical sense. On my reading, the term echoes the similar usage in Ugaritic, which may be a useful guide to the Hebrew. In KTU 1.5 vi 6-7 it denotes the threshold of the underworld:

m*ģny* 6 *lnᶜmy.arṣ.dbr*	we came to Paradise, the land of pasture,
7 *lysmt.šd.šḫlmwt*	to Delight, the steppe by the shore of death.

In KTU 1.3 iii 28-31 (cf. 1.10 iii 27-31) it denotes the threshold of the divine mountain, the former reading:

atm.wank 29 *ibģyh.btk.ģry.il.ṣpn*	Come, and I shall reveal it in the midst of my divine mountain, Saphon,
30 *bqdš.bģr.nḫlty*	in the sanctuary, on the mountain of my inheritance,
31 *bnᶜm.bgbᶜ.tliyt*	in Paradise, on the hill of victory.

There may be a euphemistic dimension to this usage. After all, in both instances here, it denotes a liminal place, both dangerous and potentially destructive, the threshold of the underworld, or the threshold of a temple. But euphemistic usage can imbue a term with richer, more positive nuances, and the psalm reflects such a development.

A close reading of Psalm 16 requires a partial reappraisal of the line taken by Dahood and Spronk on the matter of "eternal life". This is the translation Dahood offered for *ḥayyîm* in v. 11[95]. Not to be separated from this so far as the ideology is concerned are two important points. Firstly, the (here, implicit) garden image belongs to temple architectural forms, and in many Bronze Age sites appears to have functioned both as a temple garden and as a (collective) royal tomb, as at Ebla, Qatna and Ugarit (cf. the *gan-hammelek* in Jerusalem)[96]. The templates of Eden in Genesis 2 and Ezekiel 28 require to be superimposed on one another, both in turn on the Jerusalem temple, and this in turn with the garden tomb of John 20 (this last requiring us to postulate a continuity of tradition and ideology between the first temple and the New Testament period: this is how intertextuality works!)[97]. It is in this nexus of developing ideas that the geography of the dwelling-place of the resurrected is to be set. It is the framework of the rich pseudepigraphical literature on the trope.

Psalms 49: 15 and 73: 24-25 express similar sentiments to those of Psalm 16. Psalm 49:15-16 (EVV 14-15) reads as follows:

15 *kaṣṣ'ōn liššĕ'ôl šattû*	Like sheep they are bound for Sheol;
māwet yirᶜēm	Death is their shepherd.

93 The language of the cult, originally before an image.

94 "At your right hand": a specifically royal trope: Psalm 110:1. This could explain the attribution of the psalm *lĕdāwid*.

95 Dahood 1965: 86, 91.

96 See discussion and references in Wyatt 2012: 284-86.

97 See Wyatt 1990, 2014.

**wayyardû bām yĕšārîm lĕbāqār*	And they shall go down into his throat like a calf[98],
wĕṣîrām lĕballôt {šĕ'ôl} mizzĕbul lô	and their bodies will be devoured by the Prince himself[99].
16 *'ak-'ĕlōhîm yipdeh napšî*	But God will redeem my soul:
miyyad šĕ'ôl kî yiqqāḥēnî	From the grasp of Sheol he will surely[100] snatch me.

Psalm 73:24-26 reads thus:

24 *baᶜăṣātĕkā taneḥēnî*	With your counsel you console me,
wĕ'aḥar kābôd tiqqāḥēnî	and afterwards you will take me[101] in glory!
25 *mî-lî baššāmāyim wĕᶜimmĕkā*	Whom else do I have in heaven beside you?
(wĕᶜimmĕkā) lō'-ḥāpaṣtî bā'āreṣ	And with you[102] I desire nothing in the underworld.
26 *kālāh šĕ'ērî ûlĕbābî*	My flesh and my heart will come to an end,
ṣûr-lĕbābî wĕḥelqî 'ĕlōhîm lĕᶜôlām	(but) the rock of my heart and my heritage is God, forever.

All three psalms are "Levitical", Lang argued, being assigned respectively to Korah (49) and Asaph (73)[103], while 16 he interpreted, on the strength of parallels between the three texts, as celebrating the induction of a Levite into office. What emerges clearly from the text in each case is a clear alternative to the conventional expectation of an underworld *post-mortem* existence, vigorously asserted.

Lang's discussion does not contain any specific mention of resurrection, although this is where the logic of his exegesis leads us, instead speaking in these terms:

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98 Psalm 49:16a MT offers no coherent meaning. Modern versions (e.g. JPS, "the upright shall rule over them at daybreak") try rather desperately to deal with it, but misread the context. Dahood, still having difficulties, especially with *bām yĕšārîm*, which he construed as *bĕmēšārîm*, citing Proverbs 23:31-32 and Song 7:10, came up with "when they descend into his gullet like a calf", reading *wayyārĕdû* for *wayyirdû* and *lĕbāqār* for *labbōqer*. See Dahood 1965: 300. This is an intelligent approach to a crux, and I have been guided by it. If Lang's approach has substance, then Vawter's critique of Dahood, with regard to Psalms 49 and 73 (Vawter 1972: 162-63) misses the mark.

99 Text *wĕṣîrām lĕballôt {šĕ'ôl} mizzĕbul lô*: meaning conjectural. Cf. Dahood 1965: 301. Whatever *lĕballôt* strictly means, Dahood's account is not very convincing. To √*blh*, cf. Arb *baliya**, OSAr *blwt*, "grave", Eth. *balaya*, "be consumed", Akk. *balû*, "fade, pass away", all cited *HALOT* i 132. Wilfred Watson also drew my attention to Aram-Syr. *bly* = "hurry, frighten away, stun". Perhaps more to the point here, we should consider Hebrew *bālaᶜ*, with cognates, including Ugaritic, meaning "swallow". It would be going too far perhaps to alter the word, but perhaps it plays on the assonance of the latter, especially in view of the Ugaritic motif of Mot as swallower in KTU 1.4 viii 15-20, 1.5 i 12-20. Cf. Numbers 16:31-34. I take *šĕ'ôl* here to be intrusive (brought down from the first colon in the verse). It overloads the present colon. As for *zĕbul*, "prince", it appears frequently as a divine title in Ugaritic, of Yariḫu (KTU 1.15 i 4 etc.), Rašpu (KTU 1.15 i 6), Yam (KTU 1.2 iii 8 etc.), and Baal (in the formula *zbl bᶜl arṣ*, "the Prince, lord of the earth, KTU 1.2 i 43 etc.). I take it that here it is a title of Death. Cf. the kingdom of Death (Mot) in KTU 1.4 viii 11-14 = 1.5 ii 15-16. In 1 Kings 8:22 = 2 Chronicles 6:2 the expression *bêt-zĕbul* (*lāk*) may denote "the house (= temple) of (your) princeship", referring to Yahweh. The use of *mi-* remains problematic. Wilfred Watson has suggested to me that the *m* may be an enclitic on *šĕ'ôl*. In this case it would belong to the intrusive *šĕ'ôl* (perhaps giving it an adverbial force) on my construal, and therefore also require excision in order to recover an original text. I concede that we can never be certain that this or that version of a text is the Ur-text!
(* Wehr, 75: *balīy*, "worn, old, shabby… decomposed etc."; *balīya*, "tribulation etc.".)

100 Emphatic k*î*.

101 The same verb *lāqaḥ* is used of God's "taking" of Enoch in Genesis 5:24.

102 The particle *wĕᶜimmĕkā* appears to be performing double-duty.

103 See Buss 1963.

> Unlike the other Israelites, who expected to spend life after death in Sheol, a vast underground realm inaccessible to the living but inhabited by their ancestors, the Levites entertained the presumably secret, esoteric notion of an afterlife with God in heaven. A heavenly afterlife would be the exclusive privilege of the landless Levites, granted to none of the landowners[104].

If we consider this to be at an early stage in the development of the idea, so far as acceptance within Israelite-Judahite eschatology is concerned, then we do not have to demand consistency with later developments. Perhaps no differentiation was yet understood between different nuances. Perhaps none had yet arisen.

Lang then went on to emphasise the opposition between conventional (land-based) and Levitical beliefs:

> Psalm 16 is marked by a clear binary opposition between "ancestor worship and post-mortem existence in the netherworld" and "worship of Yahweh and post-mortem existence in God's abode, heaven." This binary opposition does not juxtapose two equally inviting prospects but privileges one prospect over the other, taking heaven to be the better place. Heaven is above and takes precedence on the scale of values. Heaven, moreover, is only for an elite minority, whereas Sheol for all the others, the masses. After this life, the Levite expects to be promoted to a heavenly abode, presumably to continue work in the service of his divine master. Levites would die a normal death, and have a normal burial, but their soul would not descend to the netherworld; instead, it would find its way upwards, to heaven. [105]

He made a further important point regarding the matter of individuality, which I raised above as a possibly significant factor in the development of later ideas:

> Heaven, by contrast, belongs to a different, theocentric complex of ideas—"God, cult, and afterlife in heaven," where the individual relates to God alone, to the exclusion of all human relationships or attachment to the land. Human relationships exist in levitical everyday life, but they are weaker than in other societal groups, and when they conflict with the theocentric complex they are completely denied. When such conflict arises, the Levite must say of each relative, be it father or mother, brother or son, "I do not see him" (Deut 33:9), I do not recognise any relationship. The Levite belongs to heaven where no human relationships exist.[106]

Now if a celestial rather than an infernal destiny was on offer, it evidently has a conceptual link with resurrection, whether seen in spiritual or physical terms. Perhaps the lack of an indication of which nuance is intended indicates that the idea as formulated in Psalm 16 predates its later refinement. Certainly, Lang's citation of Acts 2:25-28, (to which add 31) and 13:35, which quote Psalm 16 in support of claims about Jesus' resurrection, is eloquent testimony to the continuing interpretation of the psalm[107].

Conclusion

This survey of diverse currents influencing beliefs over a long period of history leads to the conclusion that it is wrong to identify any single cause for the rise in resurrection belief. Violent political upheavals in the second century BC, the time of the Maccabaean crisis,

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[104] Lang 2017: 77. "Heaven" appears throughout the article. The function of Sheol as indicated here perhaps goes beyond the evidence, being either the destiny of those who fail to be gathered/added to the community of ancestors, or (and perhaps in addition to) a transit point on the way to that gathering—a forerunner to the later ideas of limbo and purgatory.

[105] Lang 2017: 79.

[106] Lang 2017: 79.

[107] Lang 2017: 80-82. He also (*loc. cit.*) considered assumption (Jesus, Moses, Enoch, Elijah) as representing the scope of levitical beliefs.

appear to have concentrated minds on the theodicial problem of righteous suffering and martyrdom. But as we have seen, currents of thinking, both within Judah-Jehud and among neighbouring peoples, go back centuries, with Palestine at the heart of the great Afro-Asiatic mercantile and geopolitical zone. The Levitical belief system, if Lang's analysis is correct, certainly owed something to land-ownership issues, but developed in a world where developments in eschatological thought transcended political and social boundaries.

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